

The Political Consequences of “Source Country” Operations: Evidence from Crop Eradication in Mexico Supplemental Information

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A1 Military Geography

While Mexico is politically divided into 32 states, the Mexican Army is territorially organized around 13 military regions and 46 military zones. Each region is headed by a Division General and encompasses whole states, while military zones are headed by lower-ranking Brigade Generals and can incorporate municipalities from one, two, or three different states. Zone commanders have operational autonomy in the territory they head and can appoint the commanders of sectors and subsectors within their territory. In addition, the president has the prerogative to appoint both zone and region commanders directly for an indeterminate length of time. Figure A1 shows the overlap between military zones and regions.

States, Military Zones, and Military Regions

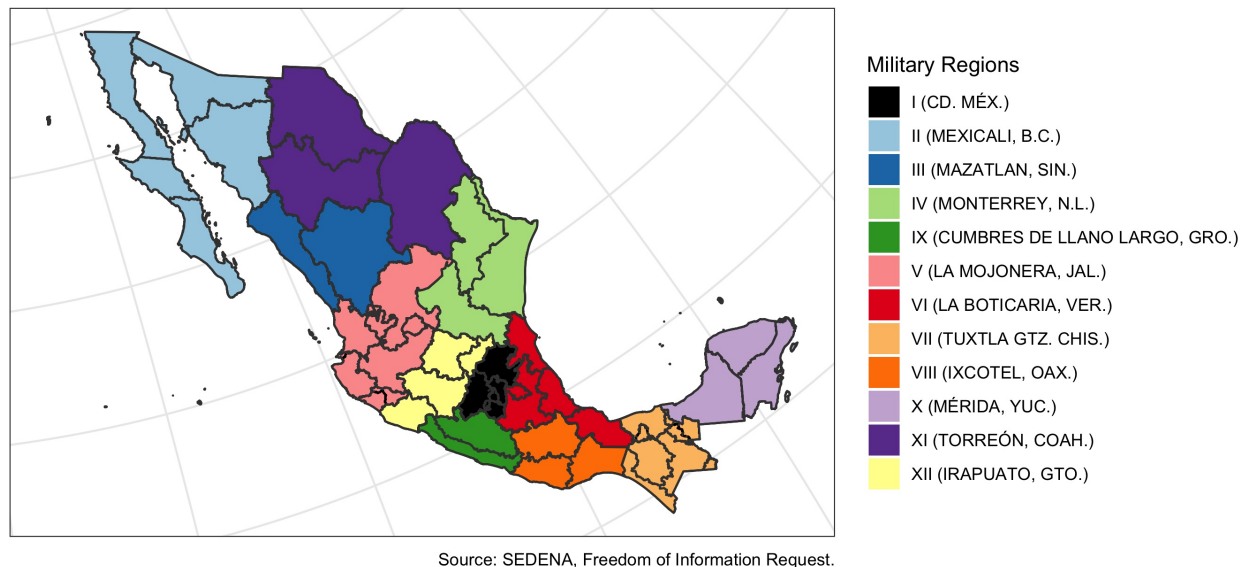


Figure A1: The map colors municipalities by the military region to which they belong and shows the borders of military zones in black.

A1.1 Military Organization and Eradication Operations

Mexico's crop eradication program is executed by the Secretaría de la Defensa Nacional (SEDENA) through the army's territorial command structure. Two primary documents describe this organizational architecture: SEDENA's accountability report for the 2006–2012 period, *Memoria Documental: Operaciones Contra el Narcotráfico* (SDN-MD-11), and the interagency *Protocolo Nacional de Actuación para la Destrucción de Plantíos Ilícitos*. Together, these sources reveal a hierarchical system in which broad campaign planning is centralized at the Military Region level, resource allocation and performance monitoring occur at the Military Zone level, and troop deployment takes place at the subsector level.

Command hierarchy and decentralized execution. The 2007–2012 “Directiva para el Combate Integral al Narcotráfico” established the strategic framework under which eradication operations are planned and conducted. As SDN-MD-11 explains, SEDENA implemented new procedures aimed at granting “*mayor libertad a los Comandantes para realizar sus operaciones en forma descentralizada*” (greater freedom for Commanders to carry out their operations in a decentralized manner), while privileging aerial resources, technological tools, and statistical methods to estimate cultivated area and production capacity (SDN-MD-11, p. 1). The eradication section of the report specifies the responsibility structure: “*los Comandantes de Región Militar son los responsables de concebir, preparar y conducir las operaciones previstas*” (the Military Region Commanders are responsible for conceiving, preparing, and conducting the planned operations; SDN-MD-11, p. 52). The document further describes a system of “*planeamiento centralizado y ejecución descentralizada*” (centralized planning and decentralized execution; SDN-MD-11, p. 58) in which zone commanders play a central role.

Eradication as a systematic, state-based campaign. Eradication campaigns are organized as sequential, state-level sweeps. SDN-MD-11 lists all “Operaciones de Alto Impacto de Erradicación” and “Operaciones Regionales de erradicación” by year, and these are uniformly labeled by state and sequential number: Michoacán I, II, III; Guerrero I, II, III; Sinaloa I, II, III; Durango I, II, III; and so forth (SDN-MD-11, pp. 53–56). Each operation covers a defined time period within the year, and the directive's stated objective was to “*disminuir gradualmente las áreas de cultivo de plantíos ilícitos*” (gradually reduce the areas of illicit crop cultivation; SDN-MD-11, p. 52).

The *Operaciones de Alto Impacto* are large, time-bounded seasonal sweeps concentrated in a single state; the *Operaciones Regionales* are the ongoing, lower-intensity eradication activity that zone commanders conduct continuously within their jurisdictions between major campaigns. In both modalities, the program's objective is to reduce cultivated area, not to weaken or target particular criminal networks.

Field detection via satellite imagery. The army's Proyecto de Fotointerpretación de Imágenes Satelitales (Satellite Image Photointerpretation Project) further supports the technology-driven nature of field detection. SDN-MD-11 explains that the project was developed “*para minimizar el tiempo de localización de plantíos ilícitos en áreas de incidencia en el territorio Nacional*” (to minimize the time required to locate illicit plantings in areas of incidence throughout the national territory; SDN-MD-11, p. 50). The program relies on imagery from the SPOT satellite constellation, received through the Estación de Recepción México de la Constelación Spot (ERMEXS), which began operating in 2003. In November 2008, an interinstitutional Grupo de Análisis de Imágenes Satelitales (Satellite Image Analysis Group) was established between SEDENA and the Secretaría de Marina to conduct illicit crop detection activities using satellite imagery (SDN-MD-11, p. 59).

A2 The Drug-Trafficking Chain

Growers, not drug-trafficking organizations (DTOs), often own the illegal crops the army eradicates in Mexico. Thus, eradication operations affect DTOs less directly than growers, and the negative economic shock is absorbed by growers that, as Figure A2 shows, sell their crops to intermediaries.

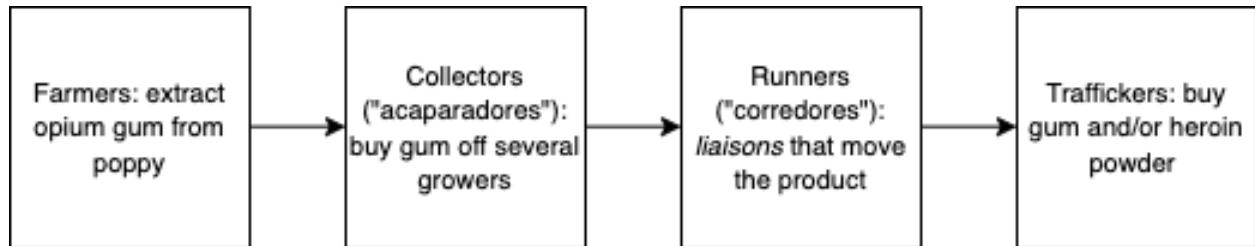


Figure A2: The figure describes the drug-trafficking process, starting from the sale of poppy in a town of the Sierra de Guerrero, following Álvarez Rodríguez (2021).

A3 Semi-Structured Interviews with Mexican Officials

To better understand the domestic political dynamics driving eradication policy in Mexico, I conducted four semi-structured interviews with former high-level Mexican politicians in May 2025.

A3.1 Interview Subjects

- Former federal senator
- Former federal deputy
- Former federal deputy and President of Congress
- Former Presidential Chief of Staff

All interviews lasted 40-60 minutes and followed a standardized protocol covering drug policy, US-Mexico relations, and eradication considerations.

A3.2 Key Findings

The interviews reveal three consistent themes:¹

US Influence in Drug Policy: All interviewees emphasized how US preferences fundamentally constrain Mexican counternarcotics policy choices, limiting domestic political debate.

Former Senator: “Counternarcotics policy is a bargaining chip. It serves the purpose of facilitating political negotiation where Latin American governments historically accept US government demands because it was politically convenient for them.”

Former Deputy: “They’re being monitored by the *gringos* (US authorities), and if they didn’t burn any plantations, they’d get into trouble.”

Former Deputy: “You know this whole certification thing [...] but it’s clear that they’re told ‘act here’ and they act here, and then they get certified. If they did nothing, they’d be at fault with the *gringo* (US) government.”

¹All quotes are the author’s translation from Spanish.

Former CoS: “During the nineties, eradication was practically a tacit requirement to avoid losing certification. In practice, it became an indispensable diplomatic gesture in the relationship with Washington.”

Former CoS: “Certification wasn’t just a formality: it was a thermometer of presidential credibility [...] It became a kind of ‘annual exam of responsible sovereignty.’ ”

Eradication as Politically Expedient: Officials described crop eradication as useful for political purposes, *not* for curbing drug production.

Former Deputy: “It’s propaganda. For Trump, the easiest place to show trophies is Mexico, in the fight against cartels... In the US they are very concerned about narco-politics, eradication also serves the purpose of emphasizing that Mexico’s government are not narcos.”

Former Deputy: “They do it for propaganda; they already know that little is exported; there’s much less in exports. The issue is fentanyl.”

Former Deputy: “They’re just covering the male’s eye (i.e., putting up a façade or making a superficial gesture); they need to justify themselves.”

Former CoS: “It [eradication] responded primarily to the US annual certification process, which evaluated anti-drug cooperation as a condition for maintaining assistance and bilateral legitimacy. This pressure shaped the national agenda, although efforts were made to align it with domestic narratives of sovereignty and crime fighting.”

Policy Inelasticity: Despite recognition that DTOs no longer mainly profit from crops like marijuana and poppy, and despite strides to legalize the recreational use of marijuana in the US, drug policy reform remains off the policy menu.

Former Senator: “The problem is that we can’t even discuss the issue. Prohibition doesn’t allow us to discuss why.”

Former Deputy: “It’s not a priority for the federal government. Nothing is more important than propaganda.”

Former CoS: “During the certification era, the US prevailed [over crop-growing communities]. Not meeting their [the US] expectations could lead to ‘decertification,’ which was a major geopolitical blow. The local community hardly had a voice in these foreign policy decisions.”

A3.3 Compliance with APSA’s Principles and Guidance for Human Subjects Research

This subsection discusses the elite interview study’s compliance with APSA’s principles. Principles are reproduced in bold.

- **Power: When designing and conducting research, political scientists should be aware of power differentials between researcher and researched and the ways in which such power differentials can affect the voluntariness of consent and the evaluation of risk and benefit.** The interviews were conducted with former high-ranking Mexican politicians, including federal senators, deputies, and the presidential chief of staff. These participants represent powerful political actors rather than vulnerable populations, minimizing concerns about power imbalances that could compromise voluntary participation.

- **Consent:** Political science researchers should generally seek informed consent from individuals who are directly engaged by the research process [...] All respondents explicitly consented to participate in the interview after being informed about the research project and were informed about their right to stop the interview or refuse to answer any question. No coercion or influence was used to encourage participation. The study involved minimal risk of harm.
- **Deception:** Political science researchers should carefully consider any use of deception and the ways in which deception can conflict with participant autonomy. No deception was used at any point during the interviews. Participants were informed about the research goal and the topics to be discussed prior to the session.
- **Harm and trauma:** Political science researchers should consider the harms associated with their research. The study involved minimal risk of harm. Interview questions focused on policy perspectives and institutional dynamics rather than personal or traumatic experiences. Participants retained full control over their level of engagement and could decline to answer any questions.
- **Confidentiality:** Political science researchers should generally keep the identities of research participants confidential; when circumstances require, researchers should adopt the higher standard of ensuring anonymity. While participants' general roles (e.g., "former federal senator") are disclosed to provide necessary context for their perspectives, specific names and identifying details are kept confidential to protect participants' privacy.
- **Impact:** Political science researchers conducting studies on political processes should consider the broader social impacts of the research process as well as the impact on the experience of individuals directly engaged by the research. The interviews did not intervene in any ongoing political processes and focused on participants' retrospective assessments of completed policy periods. The research contributes to academic understanding of policy dynamics without compromising political processes.
- **Laws, Regulations, and Prospective Review:** Political science researchers should be aware of relevant laws and regulations governing their research-related activities. This study received IRB approval from the University of Pennsylvania Institutional Review Board (858571).

A3.4 Party Platforms, 2015 and 2018

To assess whether any political force offered voters an alternative to eradication, I reviewed the electoral platforms that each party and coalition registered with the National Electoral Institute (INE) for the 2015 and 2018 federal elections, 24 documents in total. I searched each platform for references to poppy, marijuana, illegal crops, eradication, drugs, drug trafficking, and legalization, and read every relevant passage. Table A1 summarizes the results. No platform mentions poppy or marijuana, and none proposes ending eradication, legalizing poppy, granting growers amnesty, or offering them alternative crops. Several platforms propose broader reforms of drug policy, such as decriminalizing consumption or adopting harm reduction, without linking them to eradication or to growers. The only platform that mentions crop eradication is Movimiento Ciudadano's in 2015, which calls for moving beyond "los esquemas tradicionales de combate, centrados en la erradicación de cultivos" (traditional schemes of combat, centered on crop eradication) but offers growers no alternative. The sentence disappears from the party's 2018 platform. The amnesty for growers and the legalization of poppy for medical use that some candidates and state officials discussed in 2018 did not appear in any registered platform.

Party or coalition	2015	2018
PAN	No proposal	Harm reduction
PRI	Enforcement	Enforcement
PRD	Decriminalize consumption	Alternative to prohibition
PVEM	Enforcement	No proposal
PT	No proposal	No proposal
Movimiento Ciudadano	Criticizes eradication-centered strategy	Harm reduction
Nueva Alianza	No proposal	Enforcement
Morena	No proposal	No proposal
Encuentro Social	Enforcement	No proposal
Partido Humanista	No proposal	–
PRI–PVEM (2015); Todos por México (2018)	Enforcement	Enforcement
PRD–PT (2015)	Decriminalize consumption	–
Por México al Frente (2018)	–	Harm reduction
Juntos Haremos Historia (2018)	–	No proposal
Proposes ending eradication or an alternative for growers	None	None

Table A1: Positions on drugs in the platforms registered with INE for the 2015 and 2018 federal elections. "No proposal": does not address drugs or illegal crops beyond diagnosis. "Enforcement": supports combating drug trafficking. "Harm reduction," "Decriminalize consumption," and "Alternative to prohibition": broader drug-policy reform not linked to eradication or growers. Source: INE documentary repository.

A3.5 Residents' Accounts of the State

The ethnographic record on crop-growing communities in Guerrero and Nayarit documents, from the residents' side, why they do not expect eradication to change through formal channels. Three patterns recur across the accounts.

First, residents know the federal state mainly through eradication. In the Sierra of Guerrero, Álvarez Rodríguez (2021) finds that "the most evident expression of the presence of the state is the eradication of poppy

fields carried out by the Mexican army,” and that residents refer to the armed forces as “government.” Frisard Martínez, Farfán-Mendez, and Le Cour Grandmaison (2021) likewise finds that residents interact very little with local government.

Second, residents report that authorities use their illegal livelihood to dismiss their demands. A resident interviewed by Le Cour Grandmaison (2021) recalls the government telling growers, “Hey, you guys make money from poppies, so why are you asking me for assistance? Just go and do your thing, get involved with gum, and I’ll wash my hands.” An elderly grower interviewed by Álvarez Rodríguez (2021) says the government “treats us like [third-class citizens] and ’cause they know we sell gum to subsist, they tell us: if you guys get out of line, you’ll see, you’re poppy-growers, so don’t go gettin’ riled up.” The author concludes that residents’ involvement in the poppy economy “inhibits their capacity for political action,” and that the discretionary application of the law works as a form of political control. Growers, in the words of Le Cour Grandmaison (2021), “have no official channels to turn to for information, protection, or support.” Third, when residents do complain, their complaints rarely change anything. In Nayarit, community petitions about abuses by soldiers and police “fall on deaf ears, or are acknowledged but never acted upon” (Morris, 2021). In the Montaña of Guerrero, Giménez Delgado (2022, p. 235) documents that the National Human Rights Commission dismissed a 2018 complaint of army abuse because it involved illegal crops. A local guide summarizes the expectation: “Who is going to help? The government? The government never helps” (Giménez Delgado, 2022, p. 225).

Even demands from elected authorities have left federal eradication unchanged. In August 2018, the Guerrero state congress sent the federal Senate an initiative to legalize poppy cultivation for medical use (Le Cour Grandmaison, Morris, & Smith, 2019). Poppy remained illegal, and the army continued to eradicate it. The eradication policy is set at the federal level, so even a state government that supports growers cannot offer alternatives.

A4 Municipal level results

The municipal-level results presented in the main paper rely on municipal fixed effects for identification. Besides the absence of time-variant confounders, the effects must be constant across groups, periods, and dosages for the effect estimated from the continuous measure of eradication to recover the desired causal contrast. In Figure A3, I plot the result of estimating a flexible ten-knot cubic regression spline with the same specification. The effects of eradication are plausibly constant across different dosages for the log number of eradicated hectares; however, the effects across dosages are heterogeneous for the log number of eradicated fields.

Table A2 adds turnout in the previous federal election as a control to the specification in column 1 of Table 2. Prior turnout comes from the precinct-level returns for all municipalities aggregated to the municipality, so 2009 uses 2006; two municipality-years without a 2006 return drop out. The estimates are nearly unchanged.

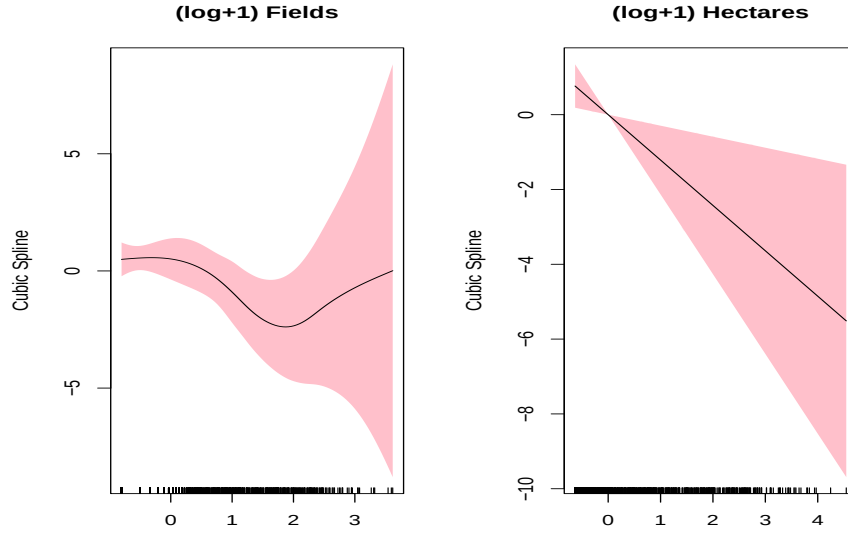


Figure A3: Figure shows the result of fitting smoothing cubic splines with 10 knots on a model with hectares or fields as the independent variable and turnout as the dependent variable.

	Table 2, col. 1 (1)	Same, sample with prior turnout (2)	+ Prior turnout (3)
<i>Hectares (log)</i>			
Eradication	-0.981** (0.344) [$p = 0.004$]	-1.013** (0.345) [$p = 0.003$]	-1.031** (0.350) [$p = 0.003$]
<i>Fields (log)</i>			
Eradication	-0.494* (0.233) [$p = 0.034$]	-0.522* (0.234) [$p = 0.026$]	-0.502* (0.237) [$p = 0.034$]
<i>Any eradication (dummy)</i>			
Eradication	-1.763+ (0.927) [$p = 0.058$]	-1.764+ (0.927) [$p = 0.058$]	-1.605+ (0.931) [$p = 0.085$]
<i>N</i>	1,253	1,251	1,251
FE: Municipality, Year	Yes	Yes	Yes

+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$. Cluster-robust SEs at municipality level.

Table A2: Municipal TWFE with prior-election turnout as a control. Column 1 reproduces Table 2, column 1. Column 2 restricts the sample to municipality-years with an observed prior-election turnout. Column 3 adds prior-election turnout as a control.

A5 Eradication: Precinct level results

A5.1 Sample

The sample for the precinct-level analysis consists of all electoral precincts where the Mexican army detected an illegal field during a federal election year. To measure eradication, I combine data on fires detected by NASA satellites with geolocated information on detected fields. Using these data, I construct a measure of precinct-level eradication as described in the Crop Eradication subsection of the main paper. Table A3 provides basic summary statistics for the resulting sample. Along with the treatment variables, I include summary statistics for the response variables: turnout rates (as a share of registered voters) and vote shares for the two main parties, the incumbent in both elections (PRI) and the opposition party (PAN).

The fire-matching algorithm makes four technical choices. First, the 2km buffer accounts for measurement error in the satellite fire data, which reports the center of a 1km pixel, and for potential differences between field coordinates and the actual eradication location (for instance, soldiers may gather plants to the side rather than the center of a field). Second, MODIS scores each fire detection from 0 to 100 and labels scores below 30 as low confidence (Giglio, Schroeder, Hall, & Justice, 2018). Keeping only detections above 50 excludes the low class and the nominal-confidence detections below 50. Third, fields can be harvested at most three times per year, or about every four months (Le Cour Grandmaison et al., 2019), so a fire more than four months after detection could belong to a later planting. Fourth, if only one fire occurred inside the buffer within the window, the eradication date is the fire date. If multiple fires meet the criteria, I assign eradication to the day with the most fire detections and, among ties, to the fire closest to the original field coordinates. Section A5.12 shows that the estimates are negative for every buffer from 1 to 4km and every window from 2 to 4 months.

Predicted eradication?	No					Yes					Diff
	N	Mean	Min	Max	Sd	N	Mean	Min	Max	Sd	
Detected fields (count)	681	8.54	1.00	206.00	18.07	356	27.88	1.00	417.00	44.71	19.34*
Destroyed fields (count)	681	—	—	—	—	356	7.02	1.00	78.00	11.13	—
Turnout (%)	681	52.62	5.49	100.00	16.59	356	56.06	5.90	100.00	15.68	3.44*
PAN vote share (%)	681	7.00	0.00	55.56	8.08	356	6.83	0.00	63.74	9.29	-0.17
PRI vote share (%)	681	22.80	0.00	94.36	13.59	356	20.56	0.00	83.78	14.79	-2.24*

* $p < 0.05$

Table A3: Table shows basic summary statistics of treatment and response variables, according to the presence or absence of predicted eradication at the precinct level. Sample as in Table 1 of the main text ($N = 1,037$ precinct-years).

While the Mexican army does not provide technical details on the minimum detectable size of an illegal crop field, Table A4 reports the observed size in hectares for each type of field in the data.

Crop	Min.	1st Qu.	Median	Mean	3rd Qu.	Max.	N
Marijuana	0.00	0.00	0.08	0.16	0.20	19.00	7,027
Poppy	0.00	0.06	0.15	0.20	0.28	8.00	38,448

Table A4: Summary statistics of the surface area of each satellite-detected field, in hectares, by crop type, 2013–2021. Statistics are calculated only for positive detections.

Table A3 shows that turnout was 3.4 percentage points higher in precincts with predicted eradication com-

pared to those without, on average. Such a difference in turnout might raise concerns about a potential reversal-to-the-mean dynamic driving the results. Specifically, if high-turnout precincts were systematically targeted for eradication or systematically different precincts across characteristics correlated with high turnout, a regression toward the mean in turnout levels could be mistaken for a negative treatment effect of eradication. However, note that this difference is in raw turnout rates. By contrast, in my main specification, I use $\text{zone} \times \text{year} \times \text{prior-eradication-rate-bin}$ fixed effects, as well as entropy balancing on census covariates. To assess whether reversal to the mean could drive the results, I residualized turnout with respect to the cell fixed effects and all covariates included in the main specification, then tested for differences in these residuals across treatment groups. The t-test results show that the difference is substantially reduced from 3.4 percentage points to approximately 1.2 percentage points and is no longer statistically significant ($t = -1.42$, $p = 0.155$, 95% CI: $[-2.82, 0.45]$). Notably, the sign reverses: after conditioning, treated precincts show slightly lower residual turnout than controls, consistent with the direction of the main results. This suggests that the fixed effects and controls in my empirical strategy account for baseline turnout differences between groups.

As an additional descriptive check, Figure A4 plots turnout in 2015 against the log count of fields detected in the same precinct in 2018, separately for precincts eradicated in 2018 (red) and not eradicated that year (blue). Turnout in 2015 is lower where more fields are detected in 2018, suggesting that the social and demographic characteristics that shape illegal cultivation also shape electoral participation. At a given number of detected fields, the fitted lines for the two groups are nearly parallel and their confidence intervals overlap.

A5.2 Seasonality of Detection

Satellite detection of illegal fields is seasonal (Figure 1 in the main text), and so is eradication (Figure A10). Poppy and marijuana are planted and harvested on cycles that peak in the dry months, and the army's satellite program requires cloud-free imagery, which the rainy season limits. Treated and control precincts are detected in the same pre-election window, in the same zone and year, so this seasonality is common to both groups, and the $\text{zone} \times \text{year}$ fixed effects absorb the timing of each year's campaign.

A5.3 Vote for PRI

In the main paper, I show that eradication at the precinct level reduced turnout. Table A5 demonstrates that this decrease in turnout did not result in systematic changes in the vote share received by the incumbent party, the PRI. I focus on the PRI vote share for two reasons. First, as the summary statistics show, many of these electoral precincts have vote shares for PAN in the single digits, which could lead to noisy measurements. Second, the PRI was the incumbent party during both election years, making it the most relevant party to examine for potential electoral consequences of eradication.

Since both turnout and PRI vote share are measured as shares of registered voters, comparing the two coefficients directly tests whether the turnout decline reflects anti-incumbent backlash or broad demobilization. If voters punished the PRI for eradication, PRI vote share should decline alongside turnout. As shown in Table A5, all PRI coefficients are statistically insignificant at conventional levels. Further, coefficients have heterogeneous directions, some suggesting the difference is positive, others negative. The evidence is inconsistent with targeted anti-incumbent backlash.

A5.4 Scale Sensitivity

The binary measure of any eradication in Table 1 involves no transformation. One might worry, however, that the results linking the number of fields and the eradicated area to lower turnout are artifacts of the logarithmic transformation used in coding these variables. To address this potential concern, Table A6 shows that the effect of eradication (in area and count of fields) keeps its sign when using untransformed

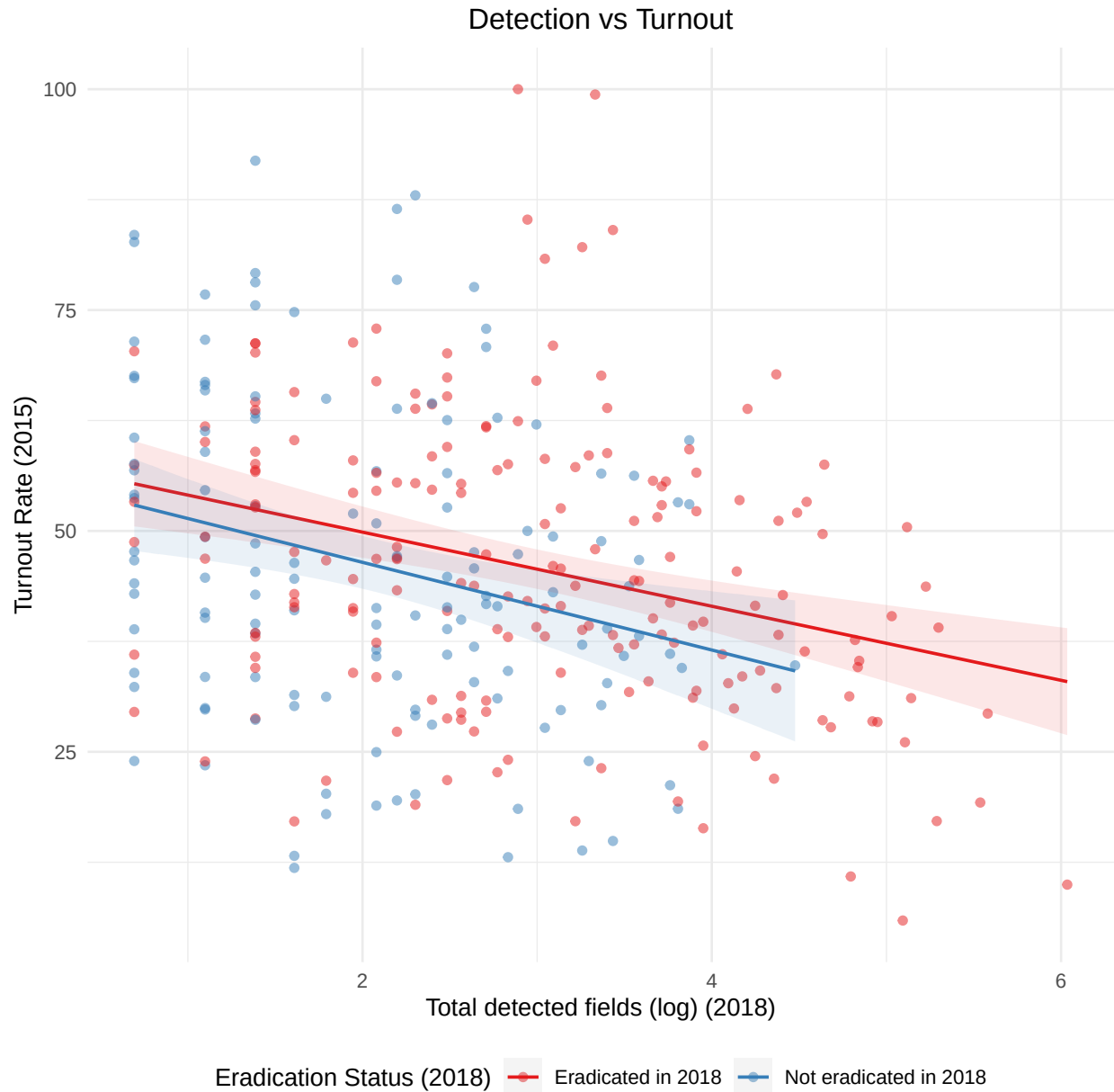


Figure A4: Figure shows the relationship between turnout rate in 2015 and the log count of detected fields in the same precinct in 2018, with colors indicating whether the precinct was eradicated (red) or not eradicated (blue) in 2018.

variables. Both the count of eradicated fields and the eradicated area are statistically significant at the 5% level.

To contextualize the size of the fields effect, when the eradicated field is used as a count, one additional eradicated field leads to a 0.16 percentage point decrease in turnout. Given that the mean eradication is 7.0 fields (median of 3), an increase to the mean level reduces turnout by about 1.1 percentage points.

	(1) Any eradication	(2) Eradicated area (log)	(3) Fields (log)
<i>No controls</i>			
Eradication	0.420 (0.941) [$p = 0.656$]	-0.074 (0.359) [$p = 0.836$]	-0.030 (0.445) [$p = 0.946$]
<i>+ 3 controls</i>			
Eradication	0.754 (1.012) [$p = 0.456$]	0.116 (0.417) [$p = 0.782$]	0.301 (0.512) [$p = 0.556$]
<i>Entropy balanced</i>			
Eradication	0.352 (1.042) [$p = 0.736$]	-0.159 (0.388) [$p = 0.683$]	-0.098 (0.471) [$p = 0.836$]
Num.Obs.	1,037	1,037	1,037
FE: Zone $\times$ Year $\times$ Erad-rate bin	Yes	Yes	Yes
Concurrent election control	Yes	Yes	Yes

+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$. Exact p -values in brackets.

Robust SEs clustered at the electoral precinct level.

Table A5: Effect of eradication on PRI vote share: precinct-level results. Dependent variable is PRI votes as a share of all registered voters. All specifications include zone $\times$ year $\times$ prior-eradication-rate-bin fixed effects. The first row includes no individual controls; the second adds three linear controls: pre-election satellite-detected fields, schooling, and employment share; the third uses entropy balancing on the same three covariates.

A5.5 False-Positive Placebo Test

Table A7 reports the estimated effect of eradicating fields that the army's satellite program labeled as *false positives* (negative detections) on electoral turnout. If the fire-based algorithm were capturing general disturbance rather than eradication of genuine illegal fields, false-positive eradication should also predict turnout changes. Neither the binary indicator nor the log count of destroyed fields approaches conventional levels of statistical significance ($N = 284$). The two point estimates go in opposite directions (the binary measure is negative while the field count is positive), which is inconsistent with any systematic effect of false-positive fires on turnout and consistent with the algorithm capturing real eradication rather than general disturbance.

	(1)	(2)
Destroyed fields (count)	−0.1610* (0.0682) [$p = 0.019$]	
Destroyed area (1,000 m ²)		−0.0788* (0.0335) [$p = 0.019$]
Num.Obs.	1037	1037
FE: Zone × Year × Erad-rate bin	Yes	Yes
Concurrent election control	Yes	Yes
+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$		
Robust SEs clustered at the electoral precinct level.		

Table A6: Illegal crop eradication and turnout in federal elections: precinct-level results with untransformed variables on the entropy-balanced sample. All specifications include zone × year × prior-eradication-rate-bin fixed effects and entropy balancing on pre-election satellite-detected fields, schooling, and employment share.

	(1) Any eradication	(2) Log fields
<i>No controls</i>		
Eradication (false positive)	−0.368 (2.111) [$p = 0.862$]	0.783 (1.738) [$p = 0.653$]
<i>+ 3 controls</i>		
Eradication (false positive)	−0.327 (2.193) [$p = 0.881$]	0.789 (1.860) [$p = 0.672$]
Num. Obs.	284	284
FE: Zone × Year × Erad-rate bin	Yes	Yes
Concurrent election control	Yes	Yes
Robust SEs clustered at the electoral precinct level.		

Table A7: Placebo test: effect of eradicating satellite-detected false-positive fields on turnout. Fields in this sample were investigated by the army and determined *not* to contain illegal crops. Row 1 includes no controls; Row 2 adds three linear controls: pre-election satellite-detected fields, schooling, and employment share. Both rows include zone × year × prior-eradication-rate-bin fixed effects.

A5.6 Detection Persistence and Eradication Frequency

Table A8 reports the cross-tabulation of detection persistence (years in which a precinct had at least one satellite-detected illegal crop field) and eradication frequency (years with predicted eradication) over the 2013–2020 period. The table shows that eradication is nearly inevitable for persistently detected precincts: only 1 of 73 precincts detected in all eight years was never eradicated. The variation that identifies the main

results is therefore in the timing of eradication relative to federal elections, not in whether eradication occurs at all.

Table A8: Detection persistence and eradication frequency (2013–2020). Cell entries are precinct counts ($N = 712$ unique precincts).

Years detected	Years eradicated						
	0	1	2	3	4	5	6
1	83	13	0	0	0	0	0
2	65	30	12	0	0	0	0
3	37	27	18	2	0	0	0
4	30	45	21	9	1	0	0
5	21	32	21	13	7	0	0
6	10	19	22	15	9	0	0
7	4	17	18	14	12	10	2
8	1	8	7	21	15	13	8

A5.7 Rate-Bin Cutoff Robustness

The main specification splits precincts at a 50% prior eradication rate. Figure A5 shows the entropy-balanced coefficient on log destroyed fields as the cutoff varies from 10% to 90%. At the lowest cutoffs (10%–20%), the split separates precincts never eradicated in earlier years from those eradicated at least once; the estimates are similar in size, but the confidence intervals include zero. From 30% onward, the negative effect on turnout becomes statistically distinguishable from zero and remains stable across all higher cutoffs, suggesting the result is not an artifact of the chosen 50% threshold.

Table A9 replaces the binary split with three alternatives. The first uses three strata: no prior eradication, a prior rate of up to 50%, and a prior rate above 50%. The second enters the prior rate as a continuous linear control with zone $\times$ year fixed effects. The third drops the prior rate altogether and uses zone $\times$ year fixed effects only. All rows use the entropy-balanced sample and weights of Table 1. The estimates are negative in every specification and of similar size to the main one. Finer stratification costs precision, since it raises the number of cells from 33 to 45 without adding treated units, but it changes the estimate little.

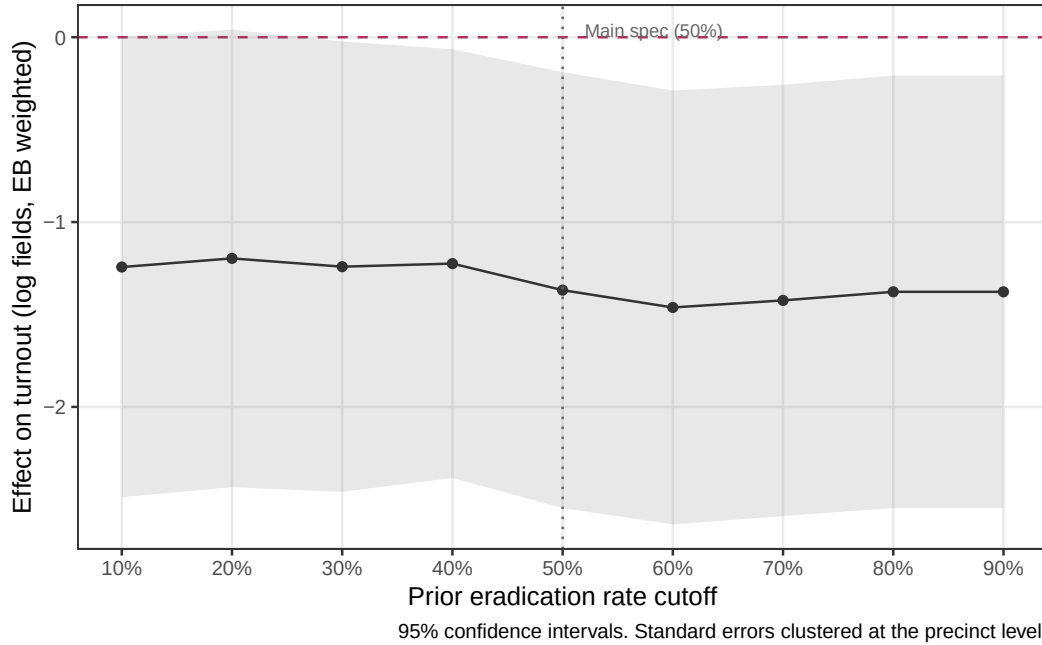


Figure A5: Entropy-balanced coefficient on log destroyed fields as the prior-eradication-rate cutoff varies from 10% to 90%. The dotted vertical line marks the main specification cutoff (50%). Shaded band shows 95% confidence intervals; standard errors clustered at the electoral precinct level.

A5.8 Balance Before and After Entropy Balancing

Table A10 reports covariate balance between treated and control precincts before and after entropy balancing on three covariates (Hainmueller, 2012). The top panel shows covariates included in the entropy balancing; by construction, their weighted means are equalized across treatment groups ($SMD \approx 0$). The bottom panel shows political covariates not included in the balancing, which serve as a diagnostic for whether eradication is selective on politically relevant characteristics.

The preferred specification balances on log pre-election satellite-detected fields, schooling, and employment share. Treated precincts have substantially more detected fields (raw $SMD = +0.85$) and somewhat lower schooling and employment; entropy balancing eliminates all three imbalances exactly. Among the diagnostic covariates not used in the balancing, prior turnout from 2012 and 2009 is more balanced after EB than before (raw $SMD -0.11$ and -0.09 ; EB $SMD -0.05$ and $+0.02$). Prior PRI vote share (2012) shows a modest EB SMD of -0.12 , up from $+0.05$ raw.

A5.9 Within-Cell Distribution of Treated and Control Precincts

The identification relies on within-cell variation. Table A11 reports the number of treated and control precincts by military zone and year. The main specification further splits each zone-year by prior eradication rate. Zones with few treated or control precincts contribute little identifying variation. Most identifying variation comes from Durango, Guerrero, Sinaloa, and Chihuahua. The military zones headquartered in those four states account for 95.5% of all satellite-detected fields in the sample, reflecting that illegal crop cultivation in Mexico is heavily concentrated in the Golden Triangle and Guerrero.

	(1) Any eradication	(2) Eradicated area (log)	(3) Fields (log)
<i>Binary at 50% (main) (33 cells)</i>			
Eradication	−2.425* (1.214) [<i>p</i> = 0.046]	−1.129* (0.476) [<i>p</i> = 0.018]	−1.368* (0.601) [<i>p</i> = 0.023]
<i>Three bins (0, low, high) (45 cells)</i>			
Eradication	−2.153+ (1.281) [<i>p</i> = 0.093]	−0.966+ (0.511) [<i>p</i> = 0.059]	−1.240+ (0.657) [<i>p</i> = 0.060]
<i>Continuous control (19 cells)</i>			
Eradication	−2.075+ (1.213) [<i>p</i> = 0.088]	−1.068* (0.476) [<i>p</i> = 0.025]	−1.251* (0.604) [<i>p</i> = 0.039]
<i>No rate adjustment (19 cells)</i>			
Eradication	−2.500* (1.176) [<i>p</i> = 0.034]	−1.220** (0.462) [<i>p</i> = 0.008]	−1.469* (0.582) [<i>p</i> = 0.012]
Num.Obs.	1,037	1,037	1,037
+ <i>p</i> < 0.1, * <i>p</i> < 0.05, ** <i>p</i> < 0.01. Exact <i>p</i> -values in brackets. Entropy balanced. Robust SEs clustered at the electoral precinct level.			

Table A9: Alternative treatments of the prior eradication rate. Each block reports the entropy-balanced estimate of Table 1, Row 3, under a different handling of the prior eradication rate: the binary split at 50% used in the main text, three strata (no prior eradication, up to 50%, above 50%), the rate as a continuous control with zone $\times$ year fixed effects, and zone $\times$ year fixed effects alone. The number of fixed-effect cells is in parentheses.

A5.10 Sector $\times$ Year $\times$ Eradication-Rate-Bin Fixed Effects

The main specification uses zone $\times$ year $\times$ eradication-rate-bin fixed effects, where zones are the primary command unit documented in SDN-MD-11. Below zones, the army organizes operations into sectors and subsectors, which are the finer units that actually execute field operations. Replacing zone fixed effects with sector fixed effects is therefore an interesting robustness check: it asks whether the result holds within the finest organizational unit directly responsible for eradication, absorbing any sector-level differences in operational capacity or targeting priorities that zone FE leaves unaddressed.

This specification has two limitations. First, sectors are smaller and more numerous than zones, so each sector-year-rate bin contains fewer observations; this mechanical loss of within-cell variation inflates standard errors, particularly for the binary measure. Second, because sector commanders operate under the direction of zone commanders, sector-level operational decisions may partly reflect the same zone-level priorities absorbed by the main FE, meaning the two specifications are not fully independent. For these reasons, the zone-level specification is preferred.

Notwithstanding these limitations, Table A12 shows that coefficients remain consistently negative across all specifications. The area measure is marginally significant without controls (*p* = 0.064); with linear controls the estimates attenuate, and none is significant at the 10% level with controls or entropy balancing,

Variable	Raw		EB-weighted	
	SMD	<i>p</i>	SMD	<i>p</i>
<i>Covariates in entropy balancing</i>				
Log detected fields	+0.85		0.00	
Schooling (sd)	−0.14		0.00	
Employment (sd)	−0.15		0.00	
<i>Diagnostic covariates (not in EB)</i>				
Prior turnout (2012)	−0.11	0.11	−0.05	0.54
Prior turnout (2009)	−0.09	0.16	+0.02	0.79
Prior PRI share (2012)	+0.05	0.46	−0.12	0.12

Table A10: Balance between treated (any predicted eradication) and control precincts, before and after entropy balancing on log detected fields, schooling, and employment share. SMD denotes the standardized mean difference (treated minus control, divided by pooled SD). Covariates in the top panel are balanced exactly by construction. Diagnostic covariates in the bottom panel are not included in the balancing; for these, *p* is the *p*-value of the difference in means from a regression of the covariate on treatment, unweighted (raw) and with entropy-balancing weights (EB-weighted), with standard errors clustered at the electoral precinct level.

Military zone	2015		2018	
	Treated	Control	Treated	Control
DURANGO, DGO.	18	124	76	88
GUADALUPE, ZAC.	–	–	2	2
TEPIC, NAY.	3	19	19	11
LA MOJONERA, JAL.	1	7	1	1
COLIMA, COL.	–	–	1	0
PIE DE LA CUESTA, GRO.	3	10	21	13
CHILPANCINGO, GRO.	38	49	71	125
HERMOSILLO, SON.	0	6	0	1
HIDALGO DEL PARRAL, CHIH.	6	81	46	42
MIAHUATLAN, OAX.	0	1	–	–
Culiacán, Sin.	14	66	36	35
<i>Total</i>	83	363	273	318

Treated = predicted eradication in the election year. Control = detected fields, no predicted eradication.

Table A11: Within-cell distribution of treated and control precincts. Each row is one military zone; cells with zero observations in both years are omitted. The main specification interacts zones with a binary prior-eradication-rate-bin split and election year. Most identifying variation comes from Durango, Guerrero, Sinaloa, and Chihuahua.

consistent with the reduced within-cell variation noted above. The direction of the results is stable across all columns, providing additional evidence that the main findings do not depend on the particular level of the army hierarchy used to define the comparison group.

	(1) Any eradication	(2) Eradicated area (log)	(3) Fields (log)
<i>No controls</i>			
Eradication	−1.153 (1.026) [$p = 0.261$]	−0.794 ⁺ (0.428) [$p = 0.064$]	−0.876 (0.539) [$p = 0.104$]
<i>+ 3 controls</i>			
Eradication	−0.882 (1.045) [$p = 0.399$]	−0.676 (0.490) [$p = 0.168$]	−0.660 (0.626) [$p = 0.292$]
<i>Entropy balanced</i>			
Eradication	−1.253 (1.215) [$p = 0.303$]	−0.799 (0.496) [$p = 0.108$]	−0.839 (0.645) [$p = 0.194$]
Num.Obs.	1,037	1,037	1,037
FE: Sector × Year × Erad-rate bin	Yes	Yes	Yes
Concurrent election control	Yes	Yes	Yes

+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$. Exact p -values in brackets.

Robust SEs clustered at the electoral precinct level.

Table A12: Sector × year × prior-eradication-rate-bin fixed effects. “No controls” includes only the treatment variable and cell fixed effects. “+ 3 controls” adds pre-election satellite-detected fields, schooling, and employment share. “Entropy balanced” weights observations by entropy balancing on the same covariates. Robust standard errors clustered at the electoral precinct level.

A5.11 Misclassification

To benchmark a plausible proportion of misclassified units in the precinct-level analysis, I compare the estimated eradication measure with official geolocated data from the army on all eradication operations for 2019 and 2020. For each field detected between 2019 and 2020, I replicate the algorithm described in the main text but use reported eradication instead of NASA fire data to measure eradication. I compare the classification of all fields when eradication is predicted with NASA fire data to the classification when it is predicted with official army data. Importantly, the army eradicates fields that are detected using all techniques, not only via satellite, and both fires and army records are matched to satellite-detected fields by proximity. Thus, both estimated proportions may overstate misclassification. Benchmarking the fire-based measure of predicted eradication to reported eradication, I estimate the former measure to be 61% accurate. When aggregated into electoral precincts, I estimate a conservative proportion of 9.45% of false negative and 22.8% of false positive units.

Figure A6 shows how the distribution of the unadjusted binary dummy coefficient shifts as misclassification rates vary, using the zone × year × prior-eradication-rate-bin specification without entropy balancing or the concurrent-election fixed effect. For each hypothesized misclassification rate, I draw 200 probabilistic reassignments of treatment status and re-estimate the model. The left panel varies the proportion of treated units misclassified as control (false negatives), holding false positives fixed; the right panel varies the proportion of control units misclassified as treated (false positives), holding false negatives fixed. The median coefficient remains negative up to 50% misclassification in either direction, and at least 91% of draws fall

below zero.

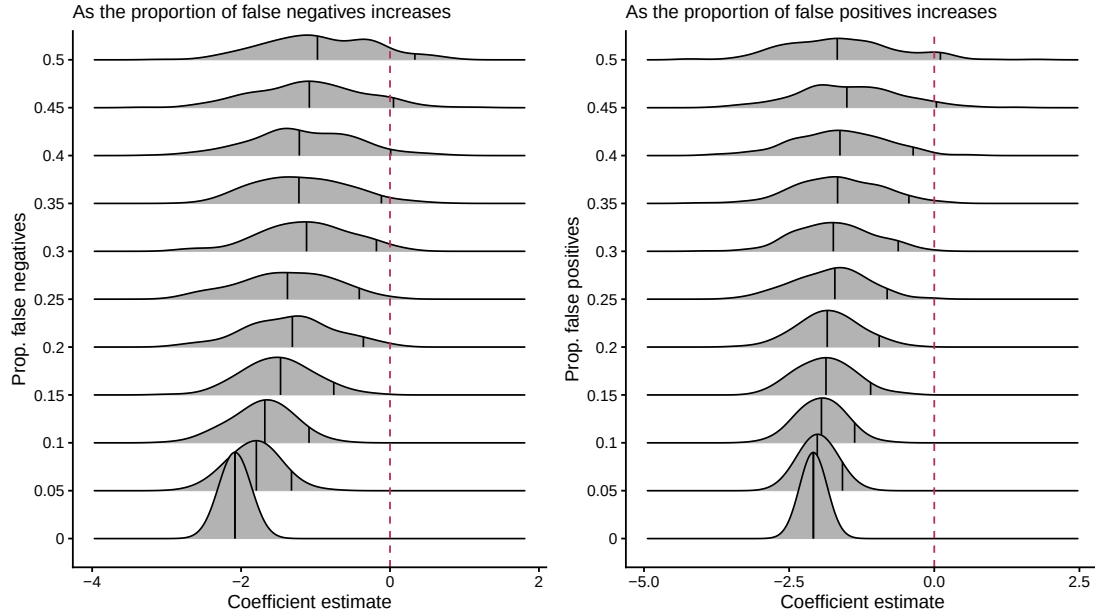


Figure A6: Sampling distribution of the unadjusted binary eradication coefficient under varying misclassification rates. Left panel: proportion of treated units misclassified as control (false negatives), with false positives held fixed. Right panel: proportion of control units misclassified as treated (false positives), with false negatives held fixed. Specification: zone $\times$ year $\times$ prior-eradication-rate-bin fixed effects, without entropy balancing or the concurrent-election fixed effect. Each ridge shows 200 random reassignments of treatment status.

A5.12 Buffer and Window Sensitivity

The fire-based measure matches each detected field to MODIS fires within 2km of its coordinates and within four months of its detection. Figure A7 rebuilds the treatment for every combination of buffer (1, 2, 3, and 4km) and window (2, 3, and 4 months) and re-estimates the entropy-balanced specification of Table 1. Rebuilding the treatment also rebuilds the prior-eradication-rate strata, so each estimate uses a fully consistent measure. All 36 estimates are negative. The area and field measures are significant at the 5% level in every combination; the binary indicator is significant in six of twelve. For the area and field measures, tighter buffers and shorter windows produce fewer treated precincts and larger point estimates, consistent with a smaller but cleaner treated group.

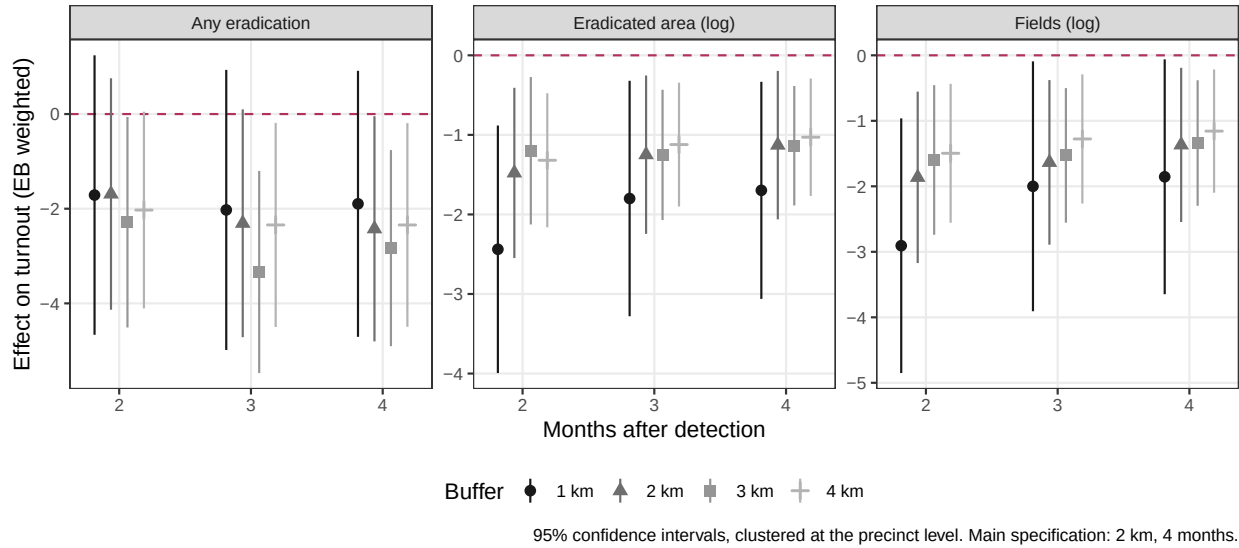


Figure A7: Entropy-balanced estimates of the effect of eradication on turnout for each combination of fire-match buffer (1 to 4km) and detection-to-fire window (2 to 4 months). Main specification: 2km, 4 months. 95% confidence intervals; standard errors clustered at the electoral precinct level.

A5.13 Geographic determinants of eradication

To assess whether geographic characteristics predict selection into eradication, I regress a binary indicator for eradication on a full set of geographic covariates (distance to military zone headquarters, altitude, paved road access, and land cover proportions for grasslands, agriculture, and forest) across three specifications: unconditional, within zone $\times$ year, and within zone $\times$ year $\times$ prior-eradication-rate-bin cells. The unit of observation is a detected field in the analysis sample (2015 and 2018 election years, $N = 15,901$). Table A13 shows that distance to headquarters does not predict eradication within zone-year cells ($p = 0.91$) or within zone-year-prior-eradication-rate-bin cells ($p = 0.70$). Within cells, fields in grasslands or shrublands are somewhat more likely to be eradicated ($p = 0.027$). The within-cell R^2 of the geographic covariates is 0.005: once zone, year, and prior eradication rate are held fixed, the full set of geographic characteristics explains less than 1% of the variation in which fields are eradicated.

Table A13: Geographic determinants of eradication. Unit of observation is a detected field. Outcome is an indicator for eradication. Standard errors clustered at the electoral precinct level in parentheses, p -values in brackets. Distance in decimal degrees; altitude in meters.

	Unconditional	Zone $\times$ Year FE	Zone $\times$ Year $\times$ Rate-bin FE
Distance to HQ	−0.013 (0.018) [0.457]	0.003 (0.024) [0.908]	0.008 (0.022) [0.700]
Altitude	0.004 (0.003) [0.118]	0.004 (0.003) [0.156]	0.004 (0.003) [0.177]
Paved road (dummy)	−0.025 (0.020) [0.225]	−0.027 (0.018) [0.132]	−0.029 (0.018) [0.107]
Grasslands/shrublands (prop.)	0.504 (0.147) [0.001]	0.405 (0.172) [0.018]	0.373 (0.169) [0.027]
Agriculture (prop.)	0.195 (0.153) [0.204]	0.194 (0.165) [0.239]	0.182 (0.155) [0.240]
Forest (prop.)	−0.020 (0.027) [0.456]	−0.018 (0.031) [0.556]	−0.020 (0.028) [0.475]
N	15 901	15 901	15 901
R^2	0.008	0.061	0.066
Within R^2 (geography only)	0.008	0.005	0.005

A6 Alternative Explanations

A6.1 Income

In this subsection I consider the possibility that eradication operates on participation mechanically through changes in people's income.

To test, I first use the 2018 collapse of poppy prices. While poppy was selling for record prices between 2014 and 2017, its price fell by around 50% in 2018. I subset the precinct-level data on eradication and keep only electoral precincts with detected illegal *poppy* fields. I define the treatment as the $\log(x+1)$ number of poppy fields the algorithm predicts were eradicated before the elections or the $\log(x+1)$ eradicated poppy area, in thousands of square meters. I estimate the preferred specification of Table 1, with the treatment interacted with election year, and plot the effect for each of the two years in Figure A8. The effect is more precisely estimated for 2018 than 2015 because the army detected many more poppy fields in the former year than in the latter. The estimated effect is close to zero in 2015 and negative in 2018, and I cannot reject that the two are equal. If the income channel drove the result, effects should be larger in 2015, when poppy prices were high and a destroyed field represented a greater economic loss. Instead, the point estimate is larger in 2018, the low-price year.

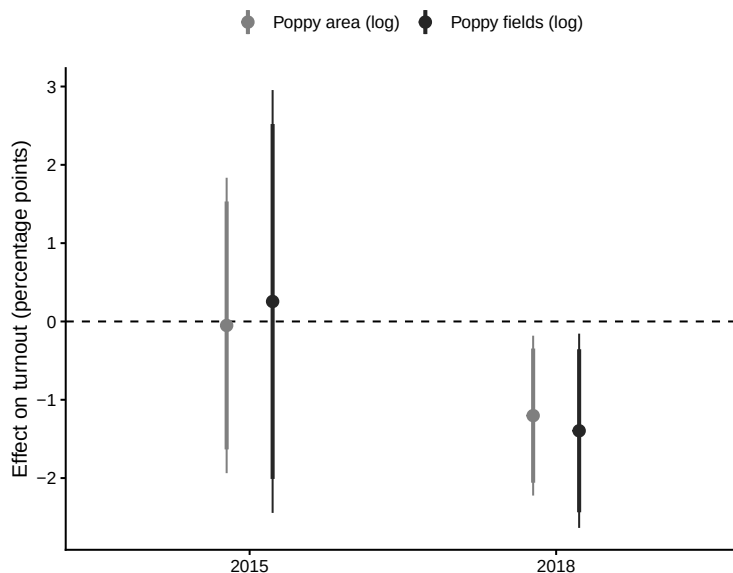


Figure A8: Effect of eradication on turnout in 2015 and 2018, precincts with detected poppy fields. Treatments are the $\log+1$ number of eradicated poppy fields and the $\log+1$ eradicated poppy area, in thousands of square meters, each interacted with election year. Specification as in Table 1, Row 3: zone $\times$ year $\times$ prior-eradication-rate-bin fixed effects, concurrent-election control, and entropy-balancing weights. Thick bars: 90% confidence intervals; thin bars: 95%. Standard errors clustered at the electoral precinct level.

Additionally, I examine whether eradication affected economic activity at the precinct level by analyzing nighttime light data. Using luminosity as a proxy for economic activity, I compare precincts eradicated in 2015 to control precincts in the same military zones. I focus on 2015 since luminosity data at the precinct level ends in 2018 (Magar, 2021). I use the preferred specification of Table 1, with zone $\times$ year $\times$ prior-eradication-rate-bin fixed effects, the concurrent-election fixed effect, and entropy balancing weights, and

estimate the difference in mean luminosity separately for each year from 2012 to 2018. Figure A9 shows that none of these differences is statistically significant at the 5 percent level. Together with the price comparison analysis, these findings suggest that while eradication has economic consequences for growers, changes in income are not the primary channel through which eradication affects electoral turnout.

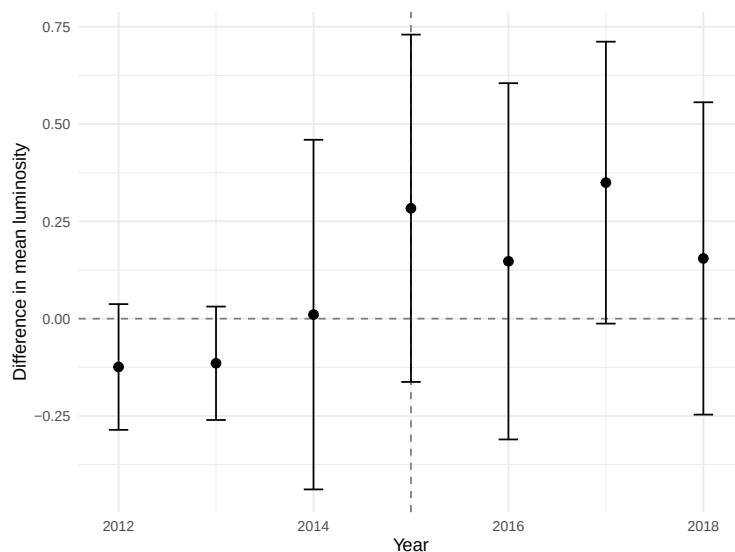


Figure A9: Figure plots the mean yearly difference in luminosity for precincts eradicated in 2015, relative to control precincts in the same zone $\times$ year $\times$ prior-eradication-rate-bin cell, with entropy balancing weights and 95% confidence intervals clustered by precinct. Luminosity data at the precinct level comes from Magar (2021).

A6.2 Voter address changes

If eradication pushed residents to move, turnout could fall in eradicated precincts because voters left rather than because they abstained. I use the National Electoral Institute's records of changes of address between electoral precincts in 2015 and 2018 and count the registered voters who moved between precincts in the analysis sample, classifying each precinct by its treatment status in that election year. Table A14 reports these moves per eradicated precinct. They are few and nearly symmetric. In 2018, an average of 0.78 registered voters left each eradicated precinct for a comparison precinct and 0.52 arrived from one, a net outflow of a quarter of a voter per precinct. The preferred estimate in Table 1, by contrast, implies about 10 fewer voters in the median eradicated precinct, which has 414 registered voters. Moves of this size cannot account for the turnout estimates.

	2015	2018
Moves to comparison precincts	1.20	0.78
Moves from comparison precincts	1.18	0.52
Net outflow	0.02	0.25
Median registered voters	348	414
Eradicated precincts	83	273

Table A14: Registered voters who changed their address between eradicated and comparison precincts of the analysis sample, per eradicated precinct. Source: INE records of address changes.

A6.3 Violence

A potential concern is that eradication affects turnout indirectly through changes in local violence rather than through the direct political mechanisms I propose. If drug-trafficking organizations (DTOs) respond to eradication by attempting to capture new territory, or if weakened DTOs invite attacks from competitors, eradication might increase violence that subsequently depresses electoral participation. While DTOs may also respond with non-lethal violence like extortion, such phenomena are difficult to measure reliably in low-trust environments due to reporting issues. I therefore focus on homicide data, the best-measured crime, as well as firearm homicides, which are often considered a more precise indicator of DTO-related violence.

To test whether violence mediates the eradication-turnout relationship, I add lagged municipal homicide counts to my main municipal-level turnout specifications. For the coefficient to identify the mediated effect of violence on turnout, the sequential ignorability assumption must hold (Imai, Keele, & Tingley, 2010): conditional on observed pretreatment covariates, eradication must be independent of all potential values of the outcome and mediating variables, and the observed mediator (violence) must be independent of all potential outcomes given the observed treatment and pretreatment covariates. While this assumption is strong, the exercise remains informative. If violence were the primary channel through which eradication affects participation, controlling for violence should substantially attenuate the eradication coefficients. Moreover, if eradication operates through violence, violence itself should depress turnout.

	Turnout (1)	Turnout (2)	Turnout (3)	Turnout (4)	Turnout (5)	Turnout (6)
Any eradication (dummy)	−1.620 ⁺ (0.937)			−1.590 ⁺ (0.937)		
Manually er. fields (log)		−0.475* (0.233)			−0.481* (0.233)	
Manually er. hecets. (log)			−0.956** (0.342)			−0.972** (0.342)
Firearm homicides (t-1)	0.021* (0.009)	0.021* (0.009)	0.020* (0.009)			
Firearm homicides (t-2)	0.000 (0.003)	0.000 (0.003)	0.000 (0.003)			
Total homicides (t-1)				0.015** (0.006)	0.015* (0.006)	0.015* (0.006)
Total homicides (t-2)				0.001 (0.003)	0.001 (0.003)	0.001 (0.003)
Observations	1,248	1,248	1,248	1,248	1,248	1,248
Adjusted R ²	0.659	0.660	0.662	0.659	0.660	0.662
Municipality FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓
Year FE	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓

⁺ p < 0.1, * p < 0.05, ** p < 0.01, *** p < 0.001

Table A15: Illegal crop eradication and turnout in federal elections for deputies: municipal-level results controlling for violence. Dependent variable measures turnout as the share of all registered voters in the municipality. Robust standard errors clustered at the municipality level are shown in parentheses. All models include municipality and year fixed effects.

Table A15 shows that lethal violence is unlikely to mediate the relationship between eradication and turnout.² Across all specifications, eradication effects remain substantively unchanged when controlling for lagged municipal homicides and firearm homicides. The coefficients for eradication are nearly identical to the main results in Table 2 of the main text, consistent with eradication affecting turnout through channels independent of municipal violence.

Muñiz-Sánchez, Fuerte-Celis, and Méndez-Ramírez (2022) document a positive correlation between officially reported eradicated hectares and army-classified cartel homicides across municipalities in eight northern states selected precisely because they had the highest execution counts during the Calderón administration (2006–2011). The analysis pools all between-municipality variation in a region where eradication intensity and cartel presence are jointly determined by the same underlying drug-trafficking economy, with no controls for trafficking activity, cartel territorial control, or prior violence, and in a period and geography where cartel conflict was at its most intense. A positive coefficient on eradicated hectares in this setting is consistent with the army eradicating more where there are more drugs, and more drugs generating more cartel violence, with no causal role for eradication. At the municipal level, isolating pre-election from post-election eradication and controlling directly for homicides, I find no evidence that the turnout effect operates through this channel (Table A15).

This null result is consistent with Campos-Contreras, Nieto-Matiz, and Schenoni (2025), who find that while aerial spraying of coca crops increases armed violence in Colombia, manual eradication does not, suggesting the violence mechanism is specific to the aerial modality that Mexico abandoned well before the period under study.

Moreover, one-year-lagged firearm and total homicides show small but statistically significant *positive* associations with turnout, inconsistent with the hypothesis that violence depresses participation in these contexts. This finding aligns with research suggesting that security concerns can mobilize rather than demobilize voters (Ley, 2022).

²The violence table uses $N = 1,248$ rather than the main sample of 1,253 municipality-year observations; the five-observation gap reflects municipality-years with missing homicide records in the SINAIS data.

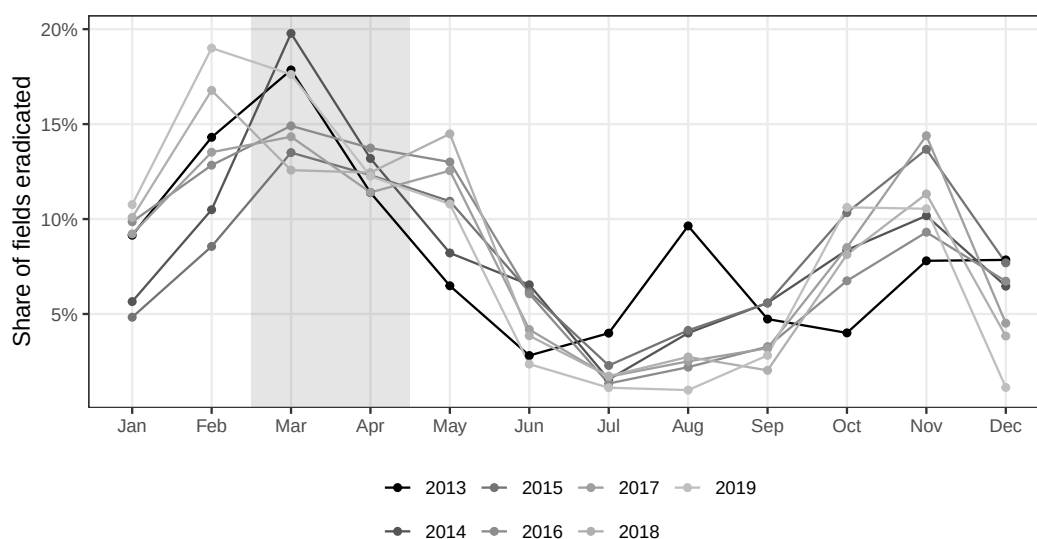
A7 Trust

A7.1 Survey questions

ENVIPE asks about each institution in two steps. Question 5.3 reads “De las autoridades que le mencionaré, dígame a cuáles identifica” (Of the authorities I will mention, tell me which ones you recognize), with responses Sí, No, No aplica, and No sabe / no responde. Only respondents who recognize an institution are asked question 5.4 about it: “¿Cuánta confianza le inspira la (el) [AUTORIDAD]?” (How much trust does [AUTHORITY] inspire in you?), with responses Mucha (1), Alguna (2), Poca (3), Nada (4), and No sabe / no responde (9). The authorities listed are the municipal traffic police, the municipal preventive police, the state police, the federal police, the ministerial or judicial police, the public ministry and state prosecutors, the federal attorney general (PGR), the army, the navy, and judges. I reverse the scale so that higher values mean more trust and standardize it by survey year. The main text reports results for the state police, the federal police, the public ministry, the attorney general, the army, the navy, and judges.

A7.2 Timing of eradication and fieldwork

ENVIPE fieldwork takes place in March and April of every year, on dates set nationally by INEGI, and the microdata do not record the interview date. The main specification therefore compares municipalities eradicated in January or February with municipalities eradicated from May onward, and drops municipalities eradicated in March or April but not in January or February, for which the order of survey and eradication is unknown. Two pieces of evidence bear on whether this timing is independent of the army’s decisions. Figure A10 shows that the army’s eradication calendar follows the crop cycle rather than the survey calendar. January and February account for between 13 and 30 percent of each year’s manually destroyed fields in every year from 2013 to 2019. The share of fields eradicated before fieldwork is therefore stable across years. Accessibility is also unrelated to which fields the army eradicates. Within military zone and year, neither distance to army headquarters nor road access predicts which detected fields are eradicated (Table A13).



Source: SEDENA monthly eradication reports (MUCD). Shaded band: ENVIPE fieldwork (March–April).

Figure A10: Share of each year’s manually eradicated fields by month, 2013 to 2019. Source: SEDENA monthly eradication reports compiled by MUCD. Shaded band: ENVIPE fieldwork (March and April).

Table A16 keeps the municipalities eradicated in March or April but not in January or February and assigns them to the control group. Some of their respondents were surveyed after eradication, so the control group now contains partially exposed individuals and the estimates should move toward zero. They do for the army, the navy, and the federal police, and remain negative. Estimates for state police, prosecutors, and judges remain indistinguishable from zero under both codings.

Institution	Estimate (SE)		N	
	Main sample	Mar–Apr as control	Main	Mar–Apr as control
Army	−0.082* (0.038)	−0.052+ (0.028)	15,755	19,520
Navy	−0.120** (0.046)	−0.067 (0.041)	10,040	12,443
Fed. Police	−0.134* (0.054)	−0.057 (0.039)	9,977	12,418
State Police	−0.052 (0.057)	−0.004 (0.038)	10,358	12,774
Public Ministry	−0.024 (0.051)	−0.047 (0.036)	5,588	6,943
Att. General	−0.048 (0.055)	−0.000 (0.041)	6,390	7,632
Judges	0.026 (0.084)	−0.045 (0.057)	2,953	3,658

+ $p < 0.1$, * $p < 0.05$, ** $p < 0.01$. Robust SEs clustered at the municipality level.

Table A16: Effect of eradication before the survey on standardized trust, rural respondents. “Main sample” drops municipalities eradicated in March or April but not in January or February, as in Figure 3. “Mar–Apr as control” keeps them and codes them as not eradicated before the survey. All models include municipality and year fixed effects and controls for age, sex, and education.

A7.3 Trust in family and neighbors

In this paper, trust in law enforcement agencies is characterized as a belief that is updated when people acquire new information about the authorities through eradication operations. The results would be biased if trust operated not as a belief but as a personal proclivity, whose distribution in the population covaries with the timing of crop eradication operations. If individuals living in municipalities eradicated before survey collection were less trusting, generally, than people living in municipalities eradicated after, then the results would be biased. Figure A11 shows that this is not the case. The timing of eradication is not correlated with differences in trust in family or in neighbors.

A7.4 Measurement Concerns

In the paper, I show that rural respondents living in municipalities eradicated before survey collection report lower trust in federal authorities than those in municipalities eradicated after. I also demonstrate that urban dwellers in these same municipalities exhibit no such difference. However, a potential concern is that non-random missingness could bias the results. For instance, individuals affected by eradication might be less likely to answer trust questions for reasons related to eradication. Although this type of bias would likely attenuate the findings, pushing the results toward zero, I test for systematic non-reporting and present the results in Figure A12, finding that such non-reporting is unlikely to drive the results or meaningfully bias the findings.

Non-responses can arise in two different ways. First, respondents may not know the authority in question. The survey uses conditional questioning: only individuals who affirmatively report knowing each institution are subsequently asked about their trust in that institution. Second, even those who report knowing an institution may decline to rate it on trust. The proportion of respondents who know each institution by

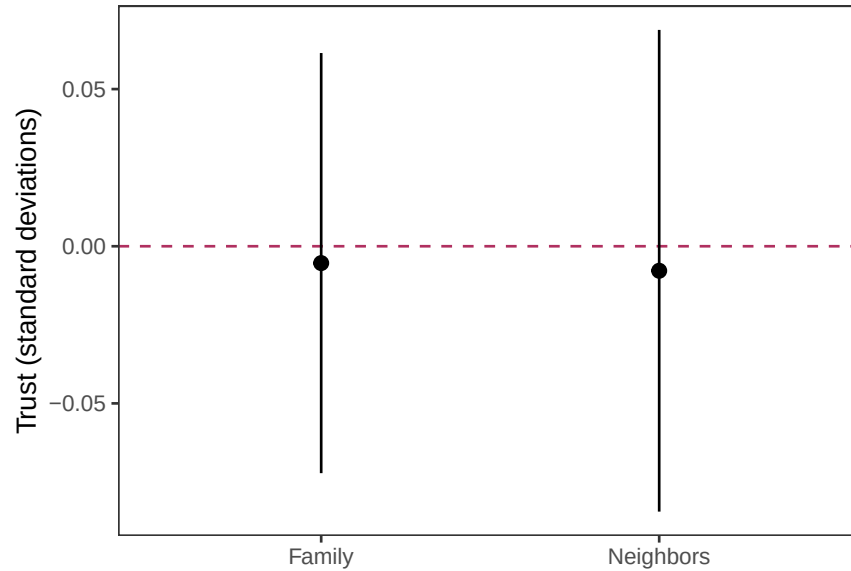


Figure A11: Effect of eradication before the survey on standardized trust in family and neighbors, rural respondents. Same sample and specification as Figure 3 in the main text, with municipality and year fixed effects, controls for age, sex, and education, and standard errors clustered by municipality. Bars show 95% confidence intervals.

year is reported in the top left panel of Figure A12. The army is the best-known institution, with almost all respondents after 2013 reporting they can identify it. The Navy follows, then the state police and the federal police. The least known institutions are those related to criminal investigation and prosecution: the public ministry, the attorney general, and the judges. Importantly, there are no differences in identification trends across years between rural and urban respondents. The proportion of respondents who did not answer the trust question, despite knowing the institution, is reported in the top right panel. Generally, this type of missingness remains between 1% and 4% across all years and institutions.

Since non-random missingness can occur either through differential knowledge or differential willingness to report trust correlated with treatment, I test whether eradication at the municipal level correlates with either type of missingness in the bottom left panel of Figure A12. Eradication does not predict missingness for any authority among rural respondents, except the attorney general, which alleviates concerns about eradication changing reporting willingness. It does, however, predict responses for the army and Navy in the placebo group of urban respondents. For the army specifically, eradication makes it less likely that urban respondents failed to answer the trust question for any reason (lack of knowledge or unwillingness to disclose). Since the main results show eradication doesn't shift trust among urban respondents but does reduce missingness in Army trust questions, this suggests that "newly responding" urban residents have similar trust levels. Overall, missingness is low and, among rural respondents, unrelated to treatment except for the attorney general.

A related concern is that while eradication might not change missingness patterns, it could still alter the types of respondents who answer the survey, particularly across sociodemographic characteristics that correlate with trust. To assess such potential differences in sample composition, I test whether eradication is

associated with meaningful differences in the age, education, and gender of respondents in the bottom right panel of Figure A12. I find that these differences are close to zero and not statistically significant.

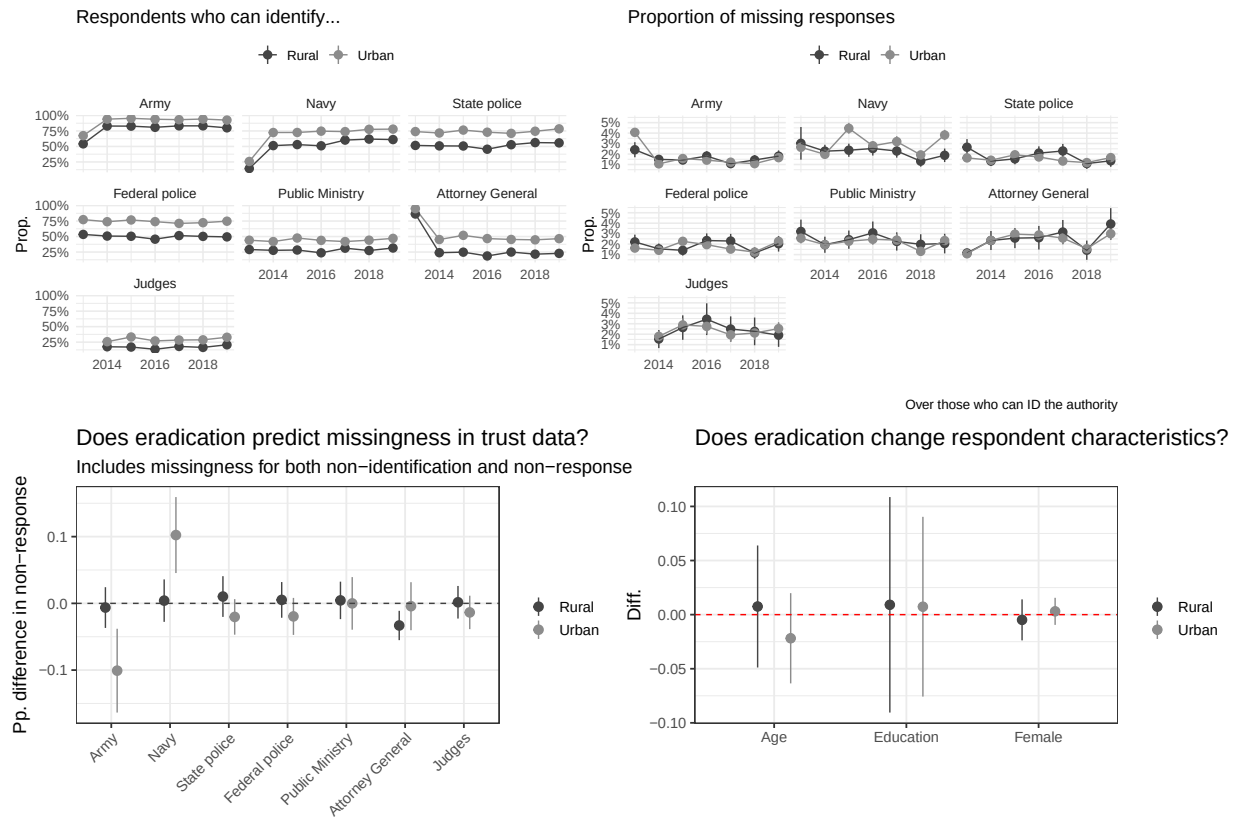


Figure A12: The top left panel shows the proportion of respondents (urban placebo in light gray and rural in dark gray) who reported being familiar with each institution, by year. The top right panel shows the proportion of those familiar with each institution who did not provide a valid response to institutional trust questions by authority and year. The bottom left panel shows the percentage point difference in the proportion of non-responses, either from lack of knowledge or unwillingness to disclose, for individuals in municipalities eradicated before versus after being surveyed. The bottom right panel examines whether eradication is associated with differences in respondent characteristics (age, education, and gender). All models for the bottom panels include municipality and year-fixed effects, with robust standard errors clustered at the municipality level.

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